

Notes on Radio Evolution of Galaxies

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Chapter 1

Useful Terminology and Concepts

TODO

- add section for atomic and molecular spectral lines, H alpha, cool gas, all of that stuff.

1.1 Basic Terminology

need to add magnitude concise defns, colour index followed.

- i. add parsec defn
- ii. **Luminosity** (L): The total amount of electromagnetic **energy emitted per unit time** by an astronomical object.
- iii. **Radiant Flux Density** (S): The total amount of electromagnetic **energy per unit area per unit time** by an astronomical object. In other words, it is the luminosity per unit area. According to this definition, at a distance D from a star (say):

$$S = \frac{L}{4\pi D^2}$$

- iv. **Effective Temperature** (T_{eff}): The effective temperature of a body such as a star or planet is the temperature of a black body of the same radius that would emit the same total energy as electromagnetic radiation.
- v. **Colour Temperature** (T_c): The temperature of a black body such that it has the same colour index as that of an astral body.
- vi. **Specific Luminosity** (L_ν): The energy emitted per unit time for a unit frequency range.

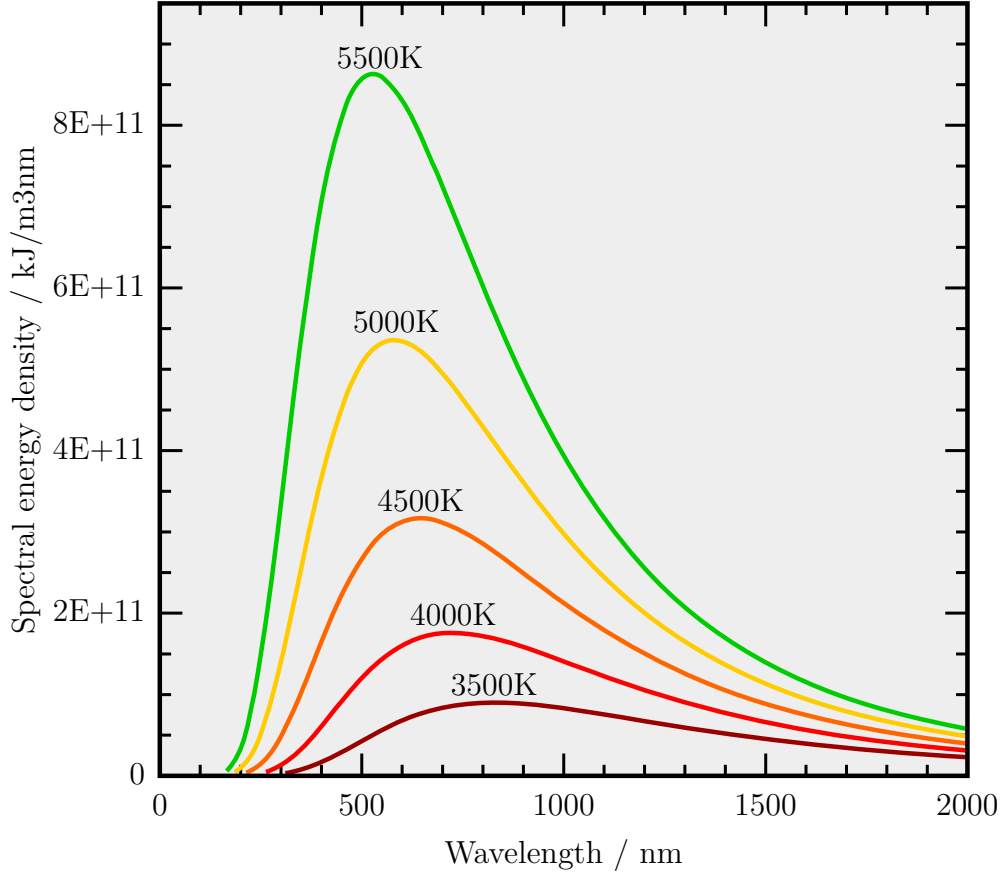
- vii. add sun units, $\odot$

1.2 Blackbody Radiation

A very brief explanation of blackbody radiation includes the Stefan-Boltzmann Law which states that the flux S for a perfect blackbody is given by:

$$S = \sigma T^4 \quad (1.1)$$

where $\sigma = 5.67 \times 10^{-5} \text{ erg cm}^{-2} \text{ K}^{-4} \text{ s}^{-1}$ is the Stefan-Boltzmann constant.



Additionally, for a blackbody, it helps to know the Wien's Displacement Law which states that the emission curve for blackbodies peak at different wavelengths which is inversely proportional to its temperature:

$$\lambda_{\text{peak}} \propto \frac{1}{T} \quad (1.2)$$

1.3 The Magnitude Scale

Our eyes judge brightness according in a logarithmic fashion, similar to hearing. This means that what we perceive to be twice as bright is actually emitting a lot more than just twice the radiant energy. Due to this, optical astronomy uses 'magnitude' as a scale of brightness.

1.3.1 Apparent Magnitude

The purpose of apparent magnitude is to closely match visually reported magnitudes and quantify these historical observations. It is a measure for the radiant flux S from a body. For two sources with fluxes S_1 and S_2 , their *apparent magnitudes* m_1 and m_2 are defined as:

$$m_1 - m_2 = -2.5 \log\left(\frac{S_1}{S_2}\right)$$

This means that a brighter object will have a smaller apparent magnitude. The factor of 2.5 is chosen to most accurately match the historically reported magnitudes. A more *absolute* definition can be found below in the next section, which depends on the filter in consideration.

1.3.2 Filters and Colour

Optical observations are performed with a combination of filters and detectors. Since the spectral energy distribution is not necessarily uniform over all wavelengths, apparent magnitudes are defined for each of these filters, i.e. apparent magnitude is a function of the wavelength of light being considered.

Vega Magnitude

$$m = m(\lambda) \equiv m_X \equiv X$$

where X is the filter for some specific wavelength λ .

The magnitudes of the different filters are related, by definition, as $U = B = V = R = I = \dots$ for main sequence stars of spectral type A0 (Vega is an archetype of such stars), i.e., every colour index for such a star is defined to be zero.

For a more precise definition, let $T_X(\nu)$ be the transmission curve of the filter-detector system. $T_X(\nu)$ specifies which fraction of the incoming photons with frequency are registered by the detector. The apparent magnitude of a source with spectral flux S_ν is then:

$$m_X = -2.5 \log\left(\frac{\int d\nu T_X(\nu) S_\nu}{\int d\nu T_X(\nu)}\right) + \text{const.}$$

The argument of the logarithm is the average flux received in total for the entire EM spectrum. The constant is determined from reference stars. This is also referred to as the Vega apparent magnitude.

AB Magnitude

Another commonly used definition, does not consider the spectral energy distribution of reference. The reference is instead defined as constant flux at all frequencies, $S_\nu^{\text{ref}} = S_\nu^{\text{AB}} = 2.89 \times 10^{-21} \text{ erg s}^{-1} \text{ cm}^{-2} \text{ Hz}^{-1}$. This value makes A0 stars like Vega have the same magnitude in the original Johnson-V-band as in the AB system.

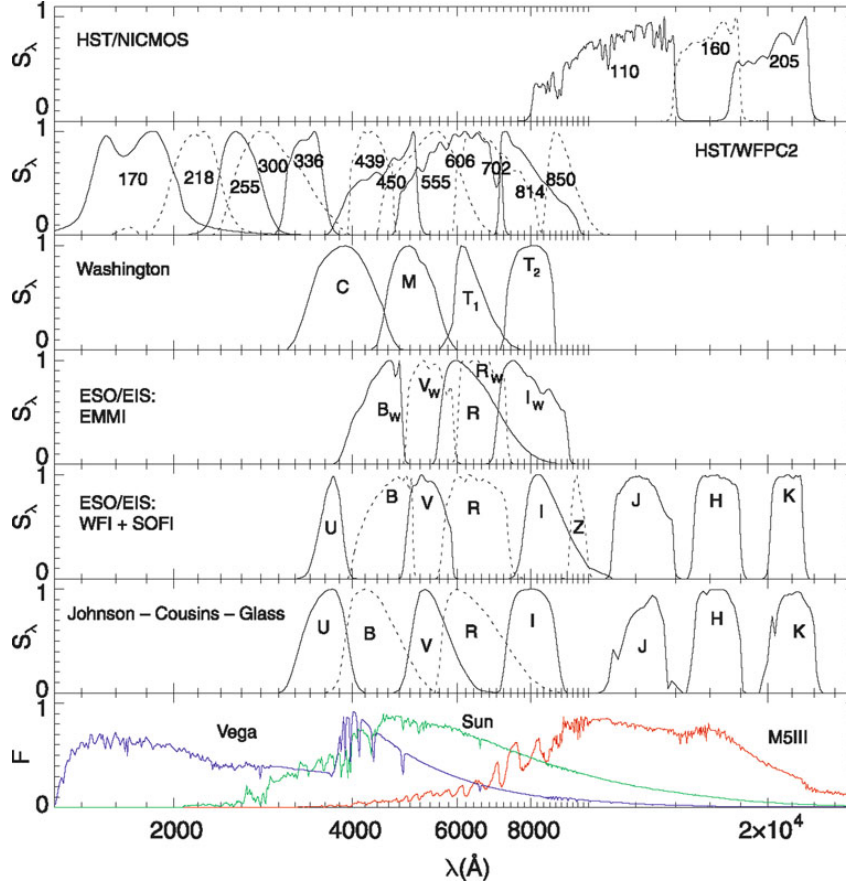


Figure 1.1: This shows the transmission curves of different spectra. At the bottom, we have the spectra of 3 stars with different effective temperatures.

1.3.3 Absolute Magnitude

Since apparent magnitude does not reveal any information about the luminosity of the body since it inherently depends on the distance of the body from Earth. If we are at a distance D from a body and L_ν (energy per unit time for unit frequency range) is its specific luminosity, the flux for isotropic emission is given by:

$$S_\nu = \frac{L_\nu}{4\pi D^2} \quad (1.3)$$

To reveal the physical properties of the source itself irrespective of how it appears to us, we define absolute magnitude, M_X , where X refers to the filter under consideration. It is defined to be the apparent magnitude of a body at a distance of 10 pc from us. Its

relation to the apparent magnitude is as follows:

$$m_X - M_X = 5 \log \left(\frac{D}{1 \text{ pc}} \right) - 5 \equiv \mu$$

where μ is called the *distance modulus*. Hence, the latter is a logarithmic measure of the distance of a source: $\mu = 0$ for $D = 10$ pc, $\mu = 10$ for $D = 1$ kpc, and $\mu = 25$ for $D = 1$ Mpc. The difference between apparent and absolute magnitude is independent of the filter choice, and it equals the distance modulus if no extinction is present. In general, this difference is modified by the wavelength (and thus filter) dependent extinction coefficient.

1.3.4 Bolometric Parameters

The total flux S and luminosity L over all frequencies are naturally be defined as:

$$S = \int_0^\infty S_\nu \, d\nu; \quad L = \int_0^\infty L_\nu \, d\nu$$

These define the *bolometric magnitudes*:

$$m_{\text{bol}} = -2.5 \log(S) + \text{const.}$$

$$M_{\text{bol}} = -2.5 \log(L) + \text{const.}$$

The constants can be determined from reference stars. In particular, using the sun as reference with $m_{\odot \text{bol}} = -26.83$ and the distance of 1 a.u. gives $\mu = -31.47$, thus giving us:

$$M_{\odot \text{bol}} = m_{\odot \text{bol}} - \mu = 4.74$$

From this, we obtain:

$$M_{\text{bol}} = 4.74 - 2.5 \log \left(\frac{L}{L_\odot} \right)$$

where the luminosity of the sun is $L_\odot = 3.85 \times 10^{33} \text{ erg s}^{-1}$. To obtain a value for the luminosity for galaxies or AGNs¹, we use the relative definition of absolute magnitude to write:

$$L_X = 10^{-0.4(M_X - M_{\odot X})} L_{\odot X} \tag{1.4}$$

where X represents the X-band filter.

¹Active Galactic Nuclei (AGN) are galaxies whose largest fraction of luminosity is produced in a very small central region: the active galactic nucleus.

1.4 Stars

Stars can be reasonably thought of as gas spheres, in the cores of which light atomic nuclei fuse into heavier ones (mostly hydrogen to helium) by thermonuclear processes, thereby producing energy. **External appearance of stars** is primarily determined by their radii R and their temperature T . **Properties and evolution of stars** is primarily governed by their masses M .

1.4.1 Parameters of Stars

For a first approximation, the spectral energy distribution of a star's emission can be described by blackbody radiation, where the flux S is given by the Stefan-Boltzmann equation (1.1). Thus, the luminosity for the star at a distance R is given by (1.3):

$$L = 4\pi R^2 \sigma T^4$$

Stars deviate from this profile and we define effective temperature (iv.) as:

$$\sigma T_{\text{eff}}^4 \equiv \frac{L}{4\pi R^2} \quad (1.5)$$

The luminosities can range from $10^{-4}L_{\odot}$ to $10^5L_{\odot}$.

The temperature of a star can be estimated from its colour. Again, to a first approximation, Wien's displacement law (1.2) can explain the colour of stars depending upon temperature. [mention how redshift gets factored in here, found relevant thread](#) [here](#).

Using the colour index $X - Y \equiv m_X - m_Y$ in two filters X and Y lets us find the colour temperature T_c (v.) of the star. For a perfect blackbody, $T_c = T_{\text{eff}}$ but in general they differ.

1.4.2 Classification of Stars

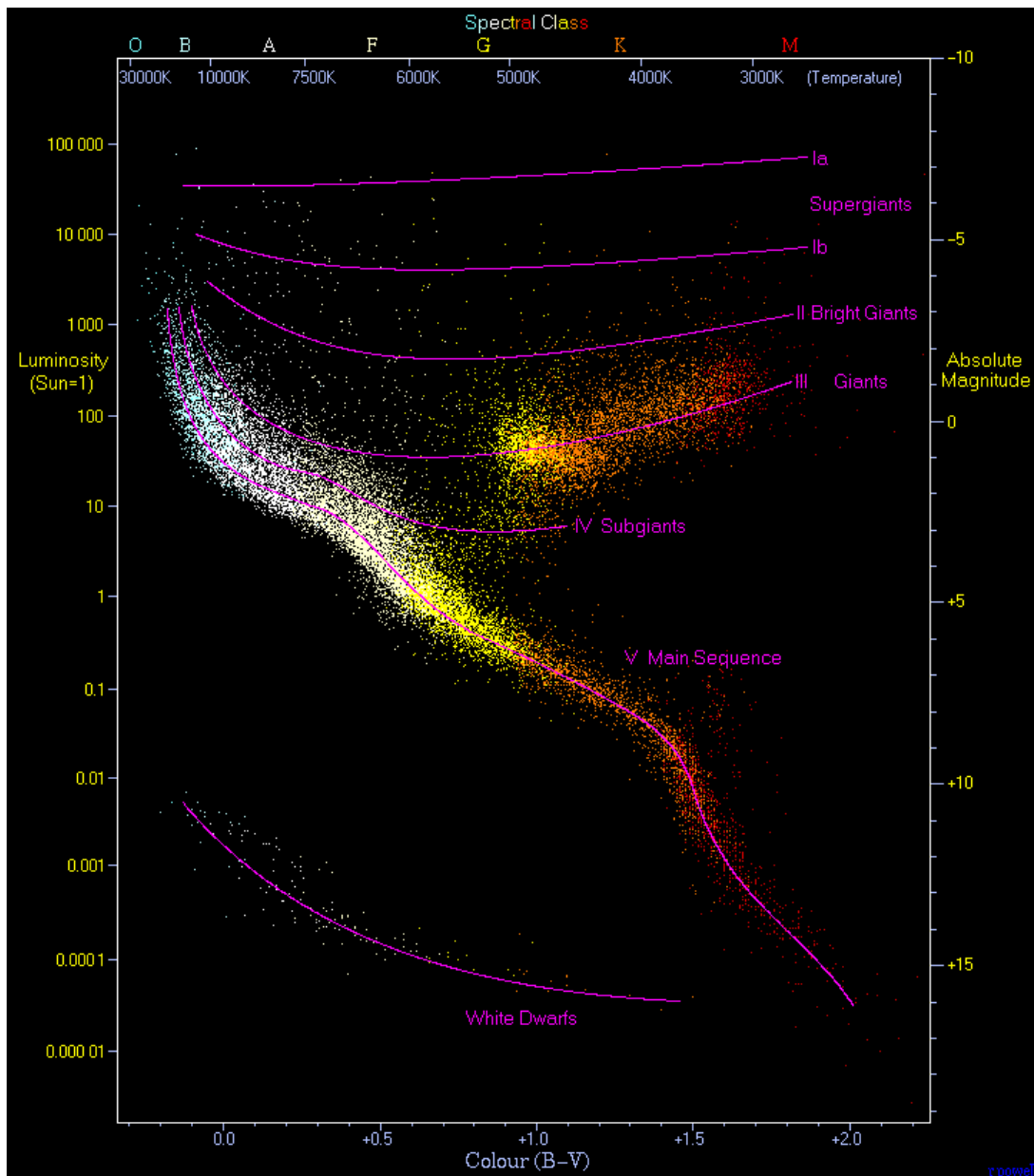
The Harvard sequence of stellar spectra classifies stars according to the **widths and ratios of their atomic spectral lines**. This is essentially a classification based on **colour temperature** T_c since the transitions leading to those spectral lines are directly dependent on the temperature of the region.

The sequence of **spectral classes** is denoted in the order O, B, A, F, G, K, M in decreasing order of colour temperature. Each spectral class is further subclassified using digits 0 to 9, again in descending order of colour temperature. For instance, our Sun is a G2 star.

Hertzsprung-Russell Diagram (HRD): Absolute magnitude vs. spectral classes.

Colour-Magnitude Diagram (CMD): Absolute magnitude vs. colour index (like $B - V$ or $V - I$)

Both of these diagrams yield a very characteristic central result of astronomy which says that most stars are arranged along a 1-dimensional sequence - the main sequence. Luminosity L vs effective temperature T_{eff} also yields a different but very similar graph.



Based on luminosity, the stars can be classified into **luminosity classes**:

Class I Supergiants; Class II Bright giants

Class III Giants; Class IV Subgiants

Class V Dwarfs; Class VI Subdwarfs

Our sun is a luminosity class V dwarf.

Since stars exist which have, for the same spectral type and hence the same color temperature (and roughly the same effective temperature), very different luminosities, we can deduce immediately that these stars have different radii from the equation of effective temperature (1.5). Thus the red giants which have the same effective temperatures as the main sequence stars must have much larger radii.

Spectroscopically, the width of spectral absorption lines depends on gravitational acceleration on star's surface, $g = \frac{GM}{R^2}$, according to models of stellar atmosphere. It is based on these line widths (and thus luminosity) that we obtain the different luminosity classes.

If we have the distance of a star (thus its luminosity) and if its surface gravity can be derived from the line width, we can obtain the **stellar mass**. For the **main sequence stars**, this turns out to be approximately:

$$\frac{L}{L_{\odot}} \approx \left(\frac{M}{M_{\odot}} \right)^{3.5} \quad (1.6)$$

1.4.3 Structure and Evolution of Stars

Chapter 2

The World of Galaxies

Ever since the Hubble Deep Field image, the whole of humanity has set their sight to discover what lies far beyond they could ever comprehend. When dealing with extragalactic astronomy, the most notable entities are arguably other galaxies, and this is a chapter all about them.



Figure 2.1: The Hubble Deep Field image produced by *Edwin Hubble* changed the world forever. All the dots in the image are galaxies, not stars.

The light from 'normal galaxies' is mainly the sum of all the light emitted by the stars present within it. need to add note about age of stars anol but for that I need to add the section about stars at the beginning.

2.1 Classification of Galaxies

Galaxies dafds

2.1.1 Morphological Classification

On the basis of shape or morphology, galaxies have been historically classified into the following categories:

1. **Elliptical Galaxies:** Their isophotes¹ resemble ellipses. They are further subclassified according to the **ellipticity** of the isophotes: $\epsilon = 1 - b/a$, where a, b are the semi-major and semi-minor axes. Then we define $N = 10\epsilon$ which gives us the representation EN for elliptical galaxies. An E7 galaxy is an elliptical galaxy with $b/a = 0.3$.
2. **Spiral Galaxies:** Their isophotes look like spirals.

¹Isophotes are contours along which the surface brightness is constant.